

Theoretical Guide

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1 Counting Problems

1.1 Permutation

- **Definition:** A permutation of a set is an arrangement of its members into a sequence or linear order. The number of permutations of n distinct objects is given by $n!$ (n factorial).
- **Permutations with Repetition:** If there are n objects where there are n_1 indistinguishable objects of one type, n_2 indistinguishable objects of another type, and so on, the number of distinct permutations is given by $\frac{n!}{n_1! \cdot n_2! \cdot \dots}$.
- **Circular Permutations:** The number of ways to arrange n distinct objects in a circle is given by $(n - 1)!$
- **Circular Permutations with Repetition:** . Let $g = \gcd(n_1, n_2, \dots)$. The total number of arrangements is given by:

$$C = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{d|g} \phi(d) \frac{(n/d)!}{(n_1/d)! \cdot (n_2/d)! \dots}$$

1.2 Combination

- **Definition:** A combination is a selection of items from a larger set, where the order of selection does not matter. The number of combinations of n distinct objects taken r at a time is given by the formula:

$$C(n, r) = \frac{n!}{r!(n - r)!}$$

- **Combinations with Repetition:** If repetition of items is allowed, the number of combinations of n distinct objects taken r at a time is given by the formula:

$$C(n + r - 1, r) = \frac{(n + r - 1)!}{r!(n - 1)!}$$

- **Pascal's Triangle:** The number of combinations can also be found using Pascal's Triangle, where the entry in the n -th row and r -th column corresponds to $C(n, r)$.

2 Notes

3 Identities

4 C++

4.1 System optimization

For faster IO, we can use the following code:

```
ios::sync_with_stdio(false);
cin.tie(nullptr);
cout.tie(nullptr);
```

This code disables the synchronization between C++ streams and C streams, which can significantly improve the performance of input and output operations. Additionally, it unties the input and output streams, allowing them to operate independently, further enhancing the speed of IO operations.

4.2 Containers

- **std::vector:** A dynamic array. Most methods give $O(1)$ time complexity for access and $O(N)$ for insertion/deletion (except at the end, which is $O(1)$).
- **std::list:** A doubly linked list. Most methods give $O(1)$ time complexity for insertion/deletion (given an iterator) and $O(N)$ for access.
- **std::deque:** A double-ended queue. Most methods give $O(1)$ time complexity for access and $O(1)$ for insertion/deletion at both ends, but $O(N)$ for insertion/deletion in the middle.

- **std::stack:** A container adapter that gives the functionality of a stack (LIFO). Most methods give $O(1)$ time complexity for push, pop, and top operations.
- **std::queue:** A container adapter that gives the functionality of a queue (FIFO). Most methods give $O(1)$ time complexity for push, pop, and front/back operations.
- **std::priority_queue:** A container adapter that gives the functionality of a priority queue. Most methods give $O(\log N)$ time complexity for push and pop operations, and $O(1)$ for top operation.
- **std::set:** A sorted associative container that contains unique elements. Most methods give $O(\log N)$ time complexity for insertion, deletion, and search operations.
- **std::map:** A sorted associative container that contains key-value pairs with unique keys. Most methods give $O(\log N)$ time complexity for insertion, deletion, and search operations.
- **std::unordered_set:** An unordered associative container that contains unique elements. Most methods give $O(1)$ average time complexity for insertion, deletion, and search operations, but $O(N)$ in the worst case.
- **std::unordered_map:** An unordered associative container that contains key-value pairs with unique keys. Most methods give $O(1)$ average time complexity for insertion, deletion, and search operations, but $O(N)$ in the worst case.

4.3 Algorithms

- **std::sort:** The `std::sort` function in C++ is typically implemented using a hybrid sorting algorithm called Introsort, which combines Quick Sort, Heap Sort, and Insertion Sort. It has an average time complexity of $O(N \log N)$.
- **std::lower_bound** and **std::upper_bound:** These functions are used to find the lower and upper bounds of a value in a sorted range. They have a time complexity of $O(\log N)$ since they use binary search.
- **std::next_permutation:** This function generates the next lexicographical permutation of a sequence. It is useful for generating all permutations of a sequence in sorted order. The time complexity is $O(N)$ for each call, where N is the length of the sequence.

5 Math

5.1 Graphs

General Properties

- **Handshaking Lemma:** The sum of the degrees of all vertices is exactly twice the number of edges ($\sum \deg(v) = 2|E|$). **CP Trick:** In any graph, the number of vertices with an odd degree is always **even**.
- **Bipartite Graph:** A graph whose vertices can be divided into two disjoint sets such that every edge connects a vertex in one set to a vertex in the other. **CP Trick:** A graph is bipartite if and only if it is **2-colorable** and contains **no cycles of odd length**.
- **Complete Graph (K_n):** A simple graph where every pair of vertices is connected by an edge. It contains exactly $\frac{N(N-1)}{2}$ edges (the maximum possible before becoming a multigraph).
- **DAG (Directed Acyclic Graph):** A directed graph with no directed cycles. **CP Trick:** Every DAG has at least one valid *Topological Ordering*.
- **Planar Graph:** A graph that can be drawn without edges crossing. **Euler's Formula:** For a planar graph with V vertices, E edges, F faces, and C connected components: $V - E + F = 1 + C$.

Tree Properties

- **Definition & Edges:** A tree is a connected graph with no cycles. A tree with N vertices always has exactly $N - 1$ edges.
- **Unique Paths:** There is exactly one simple path between any two vertices in a tree.
- **Cycle Creation:** Adding exactly one new edge to any tree will create exactly one cycle.
- **Bipartite Nature:** Every tree is inherently a bipartite graph (since it has no cycles, it has no odd cycles).
- **Leaves:** Any tree with $N \geq 2$ vertices has at least two leaves (vertices with degree 1).

Important Graph Theorems

- **Eulerian Cycle & Path:**

- An undirected connected graph has an **Eulerian Cycle** (visits every edge exactly once and returns to start) $\iff$ **every** vertex has an even degree.
- It has an **Eulerian Path** (visits every edge exactly once but doesn't return) $\iff$ exactly **zero or two** vertices have an odd degree.

- **Dirac's Theorem (Hamiltonian Cycle):** In a simple graph with $N \geq 3$ vertices, if every vertex has a degree $\deg(v) \geq \frac{N}{2}$, the graph is guaranteed to have a Hamiltonian cycle (visits every vertex exactly once).

- **Ore's Theorem (Hamiltonian Cycle):** In a simple graph with $N \geq 3$ vertices, if $\deg(u) + \deg(v) \geq N$ for every pair of non-adjacent vertices u and v , the graph contains a Hamiltonian cycle.

- **Mantel's Theorem:** The maximum number of edges in an N -vertex graph that does not contain any triangles (cycles of length 3) is strictly bounded by $\lfloor \frac{N^2}{4} \rfloor$.

- **Kőnig's Theorem:** In any **bipartite graph**, the size of the Maximum Bipartite Matching is exactly equal to the size of the Minimum Vertex Cover. (*Reduces an NP-Hard problem to a Max Flow / Bipartite Matching problem*).

- **Dilworth's Theorem:** In any DAG, the size of the maximum anti-chain (largest set of vertices where none can reach another) is equal to the minimum number of directed paths needed to cover all vertices.

6 Constants

6.1 Time and memory limits

- **1 second limit:** 1 second is usually enough for a program to perform around 10^8 operations for $O(N)$ algorithms and around 10^6 operations for $O(N \log N)$ algorithms.
- **256Mb limit:** 256 megabytes is usually enough to store around 10^7 integers (since each integer typically takes 4 bytes).

6.2 Mathematical

- **Pi (π):** Usually defined as $\text{acos}(-1.0)$, approximately equal to 3.14159. In C++ 20, it is available as `std::numbers::pi`.
- **Euler (e):** Usually defined as the base of the natural logarithm, approximately equal to 2.71828. In C++ 20, it is available as `std::numbers::e`.
- **Golden Ratio (ϕ):** Usually defined as $(1 + \sqrt{5}) / 2$, approximately equal to 1.61803. In C++ 20, it is available as `std::numbers::phi`.

6.3 Data type limits

- **Integer limits:** The typical 32 bit signed integer bounds are $(\approx \pm 2 \times 10^9)$ and is obtained by using the `INT_MAX` and `INT_MIN` constants, while the 64 bit signed integer bounds are $(\approx \pm 9 \times 10^{18})$ and is obtained by using the `LLONG_MAX` and `LLONG_MIN` constants.
- **Floating-point limits:** The typical 32 bit floating-point bounds are approximately $\pm 3.4 \times 10^{38}$ and is obtained by using the `FLT_MAX` and `FLT_MIN` constants, while the 64 bit floating-point bounds are approximately $\pm 1.7 \times 10^{308}$ and is obtained by using the `DBL_MAX` and `DBL_MIN` constants.

7 Number Theory

7.1 Modular Arithmetic & Number Theory

- **Properties of Modulo:**

- Sum: $(a + b) \% m = (a \% m + b \% m) \% m$
- Subtraction: $(a - b) \% m = (a \% m - b \% m + m) \% m$
- Product: $(a \times b) \% m = (a \% m \times b \% m) \% m$

- **Modular Division:** $(a/b) \equiv (a \times b^{-1}) \pmod{m}$, where $b \times b^{-1} \equiv 1 \pmod{m}$. Valid if $\gcd(b, m) = 1$.

- **Euler's Totient Theorem:** If $\gcd(a, m) = 1$, then $a^{\phi(m)} \equiv 1 \pmod{m}$.

- **Fermat's Little Theorem:** If p is prime, $a^{p-1} \equiv 1 \pmod{p}$. Inverse: $a^{-1} \equiv a^{p-2} \pmod{p}$.

- **Power Reduction:** If p is prime: $a^b \equiv a^{b \pmod{p-1}} \pmod{p}$. General: $a^b \equiv a^{b \pmod{\phi(m)}} \pmod{m}$ (if $\gcd(a, m) = 1$).

- **Bézout's Identity:** For a, b , there exist x, y such that $ax + by = \gcd(a, b)$.

7.2 Divisors and Prime Factorization

For an integer $n > 1$, let its prime factorization be $n = p_1^{a_1} \cdot p_2^{a_2} \dots p_k^{a_k}$.

- **Number of Divisors (τ):** The total count of divisors of n .

$$\tau(n) = \prod_{i=1}^k (a_i + 1)$$

- **Sum of Divisors (σ):** The sum of all positive divisors of n .

$$\sigma(n) = \prod_{i=1}^k \left(\frac{p_i^{a_i+1} - 1}{p_i - 1} \right)$$

- **Product of Divisors (P):** The product of all divisors of n .

$$P(n) = n^{\frac{\tau(n)}{2}}$$

Note: If n is a perfect square, $\tau(n)$ is odd, but the result remains an integer.

- **Euler's Totient Function (ϕ):** Number of integers $k \in [1, n]$ such that $\gcd(k, n) = 1$.

$$\phi(n) = n \prod_{i=1}^k \left(1 - \frac{1}{p_i} \right)$$

8 Bitwise

8.1 Techniques

- **Check Even/Odd:** $n \& 1$ can be used to check if a number is even (result is 0) or odd (result is 1).
- **Power of 2 check:** $(n \& \&!(n \& (n - 1)))$ returns true if n is a power of 2.
- **Count 1s:** To count the number of 1s in the binary representation of a number, you can use the expression $n \& (n - 1)$ repeatedly until n becomes 0. Each time you perform this operation, it removes the rightmost 1 from the binary representation, allowing you to count how many times you can do this before n becomes 0.

- **Isolate/Clear Rightmost Set Bit:** To isolate the rightmost set bit of a number, you can use the expression $n \& (-n)$. To clear the rightmost set bit, you can use $n \& (n - 1)$.
- **Subset Generation:** Use a loop from 0 to $2^n - 1$ to generate all subsets of a set of size n . Each number in this range represents a subset, where the binary representation indicates which elements are included 1 or excluded 0.

8.2 Algebraic Properties

- **Addition Relationship:** $a + b = (a \oplus b) + 2 \cdot (a \wedge b)$
- **XOR Relationship:** $a | b = (a \oplus b) + (a \wedge b)$
- **AND Relationship:** $a \wedge b = (a + b) - (a \oplus b)$
- **Range XOR:** The XOR of all numbers from 1 to n follows a pattern based on $n \pmod 4$:
 - If $n \pmod 4 = 0$, then XOR sum = n
 - If $n \pmod 4 = 1$, then XOR sum = 1
 - If $n \pmod 4 = 2$, then XOR sum = $n + 1$
 - If $n \pmod 4 = 3$, then XOR sum = 0

9 Geometry

9.1 Lines & Polygons

- **Slope-Intercept:** $y = mx + c$
- **General Line Equation:** $Ax + By + C = 0$
- **Distance from point (x_0, y_0) to line $Ax + By + C = 0$:** $d = \frac{|Ax_0 + By_0 + C|}{\sqrt{A^2 + B^2}}$
- **Shoelace Formula (Area of Polygon):** $A = \frac{1}{2} \left| \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} (x_i y_{i+1} - x_{i+1} y_i) + (x_n y_1 - x_1 y_n) \right|$
OBS: All vertices must be in order, either clockwise or counterclockwise
- **Pick's Theorem (Area of Lattice Polygons):** $A = I + \frac{B}{2} - 1$, where I is interior points and B is boundary points

9.2 Circles

- **Area:** πr^2
- **Circumference:** $2\pi r$
- **Equation:** $(x - h)^2 + (y - k)^2 = r^2$

9.3 Basic 2D Geometry

- **Distance Formula:** $\sqrt{\Delta x^2 + \Delta y^2}$
- **Vector Definition:** $\vec{v} = (x, y)$
- **Dot Product** ($\vec{a} \cdot \vec{b}$): $x_1x_2 + y_1y_2 = |\vec{a}||\vec{b}|\cos\theta$
Usage: Finding angles, checking perpendicularity ($\vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = 0$)
- **Cross Product** ($\vec{a} \times \vec{b}$): $x_1y_2 - y_1x_2 = |\vec{a}||\vec{b}|\sin\theta$
Usage: 2D orientation, calculating signed area, collinearity ($\vec{a} \times \vec{b} = 0$)
- **Midpoint:** $M = (\frac{x_1+x_2}{2}, \frac{y_1+y_2}{2})$

9.4 Algorithms/Concepts

- **Convex Hull (Monotone Chain or Graham Scan):** Finds the smallest convex polygon containing all points
- **Line Segment Intersection:** Using cross products to check if two segments intersect
- **Point in Polygon:** Using ray casting (winding number) algorithm for $O(n)$ complexity or BSP Tree for $O(\log n)$ complexity
- **Angle of vector:** Use $\text{atan2}(y, x)$ to find the angle of a vector.

10 Progressions

- **Arithmetic Progression (AP):** Sum of the first n terms:

$$\sum_{i=1}^n i = 1 + 2 + \dots + n = \frac{n(n+1)}{2}$$

- **Sum of Squares:** Sum of the first n squares:

$$\sum_{i=1}^n i^2 = 1^2 + 2^2 + \dots + n^2 = \frac{n(n+1)(2n+1)}{6}$$

- **Sum of Cubes:** Sum of the first n cubes:

$$\sum_{i=1}^n i^3 = 1^3 + 2^3 + \dots + n^3 = \left(\frac{n(n+1)}{2}\right)^2$$

- **Geometric Progression (GP):** Sum of the first n terms (ratio $r \neq 1$):

$$\sum_{i=0}^{n-1} a \cdot r^i = a \left(\frac{r^n - 1}{r - 1}\right)$$

Note: If $|r| < 1$, the infinite sum is $S_\infty = \frac{a}{1-r}$.

- **Arithmetico-Geometric Series:** Sum of $\sum_{i=1}^n i \cdot r^{i-1}$ (common in expected value problems):

$$\sum_{i=1}^n i \cdot r^{i-1} = \frac{1 - r^n}{(1 - r)^2} - \frac{nr^n}{1 - r}$$